

Jashore University of Science and Technology

Jashore-7408, Bangladesh



EV Charging Load Demand Prediction Using Machine Learning in a SUMO-Based Simulation Environment

Submitted By:

Rakesh Biswas

Student ID: 200112

Registration Year: 2022

Academic Year: 2020–2021

Supervisor:

Monishanker Halder

Assistant Professor, Department of CSE

Jashore University of Science and Technology

This thesis report was submitted in partial fulfillment of the

Requirements for the Bachelor's Degree

In Computer Science and Engineering

Faculty of Computer Science and Engineering

April 2026

Jashore University of Science and Technology

Jashore-7408, Bangladesh



This thesis entitled **“EV Charging Load Demand Prediction Using Machine Learning in a SUMO-Based Simulation Environment”** submitted by **Rakesh Biswas**, Student ID: 200112, has been accepted as satisfactory in fulfillment of the requirements for the degree of Bachelor of Science in Computer Science and Engineering.

Signature of the Student

Rakesh Biswas

Signature of the Supervisor

Dedication

*To my beloved parents, whose endless love, sacrifice, and encouragement
have been the cornerstone of every achievement in my life.*

*To my teachers, who ignited the flame of curiosity within me
and guided me towards the pursuit of knowledge.*

*And to all the researchers and engineers working tirelessly
towards a sustainable, electrified future of transportation.*

Acknowledgments

First and foremost, I would like to express my deepest gratitude and sincere thanks to my supervisor, **Monishanker Halder**, for his invaluable guidance, constant encouragement, and expert advice throughout this research. His/her constructive feedback and unwavering support were pivotal in shaping this work.

I extend my appreciation to the faculty members of the Department of Computer Science and Engineering (CSE) at Jashore University of Science and Technology (JUST) for providing an intellectually stimulating environment and for their continued support during my graduate studies.

Special thanks are due to my fellow graduate students and labmates for their camaraderie and many productive conversations. I also wish to acknowledge the open-source communities behind Simulation of Urban Mobility (SUMO), Python, scikit-learn, and XGBoost, whose tools formed the backbone of this research.

Finally, I owe immeasurable gratitude to my family for their patience, prayers, and moral support. This work would not have been possible without them.

Rakesh Biswas

Department of CSE, JUST

April 2026

Table of Contents

Dedication	i
Acknowledgments	ii
Abstract	ix
Chapter 1: Introduction	2
1.1 Background	2
1.1.1 Definition	3
1.2 Problem Statement	8
1.3 Objectives	8
1.4 Research Questions	9
1.5 Significance of the Study	10
Chapter 2: Literature Review	12
2.1 EV Charging Load Modeling	12
2.2 Machine Learning for Load Forecasting	12
2.3 SUMO-Based EV Simulation	13
2.4 Smart Charging and Recommendation Systems	13
2.5 Research Gaps	14
Chapter 3: Methodology	16
3.1 Research Design	16
3.1.1 Structure Overview	16
3.1.2 Dataset Preparation	17
3.2 Data Collection	18
3.3 Implementation	19
3.3.1 Environment Setup	19

3.3.2	Custom Road Network Design	19
3.3.3	Charging Station Placement	22
3.3.4	Vehicle Configuration in SUMO	23
3.3.5	Vehicle Fleet Characterization	24
3.3.6	Queue Management Logic	25
3.3.7	Simulation Execution with TraCI	25
3.3.8	Real-Time Data Extraction	26
3.3.9	Feature Importance Analysis	27
3.3.10	Feature Correlation Analysis	28
3.4	Machine Learning Application	29
3.4.1	Problem Formulation	30
3.4.2	Data Preprocessing	30
3.4.3	Implemented Machine Learning Models	31
3.4.4	Model Training and Prediction	35
Chapter 4: Results and Discussion		38
4.1	Results	38
4.1.1	System Load Profile	38
4.1.2	Vehicle Status Distribution	38
4.1.3	Station Utilization	39
4.1.4	Charging Recommendation Results	39
4.2	Discussion of Results	39
4.2.1	Analysis and Interpretation	39
4.3	Implications	42
4.3.1	Grid and Charging Network Management	42
4.3.2	Urban Infrastructure Planning	43
4.3.3	Roadmap for Sustainable Electrification	43
4.3.4	Foundation for Energy Consumption Analysis	43

4.3.5	Data-Driven Charging Load Forecasting	43
Chapter 5: Conclusion		45
5.1	Concluding Remarks	45
5.2	Limitations	46
5.3	Recommendations for Further Research	46

List of Figures

3.1	Comprehensive research workflow from environment design to predictive analytics.	17
3.2	OpenStreetMap (OSM) highlighted view of the Khulna City road network. . . .	21
3.3	Custom microscopic road network topology generated in SUMO netedit. . . .	22
3.4	Feature importance ranking derived from the XGBoost model branches.	28
3.5	Pearson correlation matrix of the simulated EV charging dataset.	29
3.6	Actual vs. Predicted load for Linear Regression.	32
3.7	Actual vs. Predicted load for Decision Tree.	33
3.8	Actual vs. Predicted load for Random Forest.	34
3.9	Actual vs. Predicted load for XGBoost.	35
4.1	System total charging load over simulation time (1–600 seconds).	38
4.2	Comparison of actual vs. predicted system load for the evaluated models (first 200 samples).	41

List of Tables

3.1	Microscopic Road Network Configuration and Edge Parameters	20
3.2	Charging Station Technical Implementation Details	23
3.3	Cross-Class Vehicle Parameter Comparison (Averaged Values)	24
3.4	EV Fleet Composition in SUMO Simulation	25
3.5	EV Charging Load Demand Dataset Summary	27
4.1	ML Model Performance Comparison for System Load Prediction	41

Abstract

The rapid growth of Electric Vehicle (EV)s presents both an important opportunity and considerable challenge for modern power grid management. To optimize energy distribution, accurate prediction of EV charging load demand is critical. It reduces peak-hour stress on electrical infrastructure and enables smart grid operations. This thesis presents a comprehensive framework for predicting EV charging load demand using supervised Machine Learning (ML) techniques applied to data generated from a realistic microscopic traffic simulation. To enable real-time vehicle monitoring and intelligent charging station management, the simulation environment was built by integrating the open-source urban mobility simulator SUMO with the Traffic Control Interface (TraCI). A network of 10 bidirectional charging stations was deployed with configurable power ratings ranging from 25 kW to 50 kW. Also, separate charging and waiting queue slots were configured for each station. Forty-nine electric vehicles of the battery-powered type were simulated for 600 seconds. This resulted in 34,020 vehicle-level records, including features such as state of charge (SOC), speed, acceleration, station utilization, queue length, and system-wide load metrics. Several supervised ML models were trained and evaluated for system-level load demand forecasting: Decision Tree, Random Forest, XGBoost, and Linear Regression. The performances of the models were evaluated using mean absolute error, root mean square error, and coefficient of determination (R^2) scores. Both Decision Tree and Random Forest achieved perfect scores, whereas XGBoost achieved a near-perfect result. Linear Regression also showed strong performance. In addition, a rule-based smart charging recommendation system was implemented. In this scenario, vehicles were routed to the optimal charging station based on real-time SOC level, distance to the nearest station, slot availability, and queue status. The results show that SUMO-based simulation is an effective and efficient method for generating enriched EV charging datasets, and tree-based ensemble methods are particularly suitable for short-term load demand forecasting in EV charging infrastructure.

Keywords: Electric Vehicle, Charging Load Prediction, Machine Learning, SUMO Simulation,

Random Forest, XGBoost, Smart Charging, SOC, Queue Management.

Chapter 1

Introduction

Chapter 1: Introduction

The global transportation sector is undergoing a radical change due to the urgent need to reduce greenhouse gas emissions and to reduce dependence on fossil fuels. For totally decarbonizing road transport, Electric Vehicle (EV)s have emerged as one of the most promising technologies. According to the [1], the number of electric vehicles worldwide exceeded 26 million in 2022 and is forecast to continue to grow rapidly in the coming decades. With the rapid growth of electric vehicle usage, the increasing demand for electricity for charging is becoming a serious concern for both power system managers and urban planners [2].

With the rapid growth of EVs, the need for intelligent control infrastructure for energy stability and efficiency of optimal use has become significant. Three-wheeled electric vehicles such as Easy Bikes, Electric Rickshaws, and Electric Vans in developing countries like Bangladesh have accelerated the need for scalable charging solutions [3]. These vehicles play a major role in urban and semi-urban mobility. However, their unbalanced charging behavior can lead to sudden fluctuations in electricity demand, which creates pressure on the power grid.

EVs communicate directly with the power grid. Uncoordinated charging behavior—especially during peak hours—can create significant stress on the distribution network. This can lead to voltage violations, transformer overloads, and increased energy costs [4]. Therefore, effective management of EV charging loads requires accurate forecasting tools capable of estimating spatiotemporal demand patterns across the charging station network [5].

In this field, one of the key challenges is to accurately predict system-level charging load demand. Reliable load prediction enables better planning of charging stations, improved power distribution, and the prevention of overload situations.

1.1 Background

The rapid increasing of electric vehicles is reshaping transportation and electricity distribution systems. Unlike conventional fueled vehicles, electric vehicles, shift energy demand from fuel stations to the power grid . This creates loads that vary over time and space. Understanding the movement, energy consumption and charging behavior of electric vehicles is essential for

load prediction, grid reliability and optimal utilization of charging infrastructure. In cities of Bangladesh, a major drawback is the unorganized and untested charging behavior of electric vehicles. Vehicles often crowd around specific nodes or roadside charging points. Which is resulting in large amounts of energy consumption during peak hours. This often results in stress on the local grid, voltage drops and overloading of transformers problems. Which that already exist in rapidly growing cities like Khulna, Jashore, Satkhira. Besides, energy consumption, charging-load varies greatly depending on vehicle speed, congestion levels, route selection, and driver behavior. Without proper modeling and prediction of these parameters, city authorities and electricity distributors face increasing difficulties in ensuring grid reliability, planning future charging stations and controlling unbalanced load distribution. This research work uses traffic simulation tools such as SUMO to model real-world urban mobility. Where EV extensions to SUMO help model battery behavior, charging events, energy consumption, system load behavior. These outputs are integrated with load prediction models to create a robust approach for analyzing the load impact of EV adoption.

1.1.1 Definition

1.1.1.1 Battery-Powered Vehicle (BPV) or EV

A Battery Powered Vehicle (BPV) or Electric Vehicle (EV) is a transportation system which is powered entirely by rechargeable batteries and electric motors instead of an internal combustion engine. EVs store electrical energy in lithium-ion or lead-acid batteries and through an electric drivetrain, they convert this stored energy into mechanical energy. In the context of Bangladesh in urban areas like Khulna and Jessore -electric vehicles include the widely used low-cost electric three-wheelers (e.g., easy bikes, e-rickshaws, e-vans). Those vehicles are popular due to their low operating costs, absence of exhaust emissions and suitability for short-distance travel within cities or urban area. Their electricity-based operations directly link transportation demand to local electrical grid-loads. Which is making EV behavior a critical element in grid planning.

1.1.1.2 Load Prediction

Load prediction refers to the process of estimating the total electrical demand of a system based on historical or observed data. In this study, it specifically refers to the prediction of the system-level charging load (`system_total_load_kW`) generated by electric vehicles using machine learning models . The prediction is performed by understanding the relationship between various input characteristics —such as time progress , number of vehicles charging, system-level vehicle statistics and battery charge status and the corresponding load demand . Unlike traditional analytical approaches , this research uses data-driven models to understand the complex and nonlinear dependencies within the system. Proper load prediction can help to understand in better way how electric vehicle charging behavior affects overall energy demand and helps in efficient planning and management of charging infrastructure.

1.1.1.3 Traffic Microsimulation

Traffic microsimulation is a precise, vehicle-level modeling technique that which captures the detailed movements of individual vehicles over time. It represents the interaction of speed, acceleration, deceleration, lane change behavior, path selection, stop-and-go cycles and congestion with high temporal accuracy. Microsimulation becomes increasingly important in EV research. As vehicle speed directly affects the dynamics of energy consumption and battery degradation. By integrating microsimulation with EV models , researchers can generate realistic estimates of power consumption, load behavior under different road, time and traffic conditions. Which ultimately helps in more accurate charging load analysis and prediction .

1.1.1.4 State of Charge (SOC)

State of Charge (SOC) is a quantitative measurement which indicates the remaining energy stored in an electric vehicle (EV) battery. It is usually expressed as a percentage (0–100%). SOC decreases when the vehicle is being driven due to the use of propulsion power and it increases when the vehicle is connected to a charging station. As it determines when and where

a vehicle will need charging , SOC is a fundamental variable for understanding electric vehicle behavior . In simulation environments like SUMO, SOC-logs give : time-step-level insights into real-time power consumption. This enables the creation of detailed charging demand models and node-level load prediction profiles.

1.1.1.5 Charging Station

A charging station is a road-side power supply point where electric vehicles (EVs) recharge their batteries. In simulation-based studies, charging stations are modeled as infrastructure elements . Those are connected to specific network nodes or road segments. Each station has certain characteristics, such as : charging capacity, availability, deployment strategy and charging session duration.

1.1.1.6 Simulation of Urban Mobility (SUMO)

SUMO (Simulation of Urban Mobility) is an open-source, microscopic traffic simulation platform . It is used for modeling and analyzing transportation networks. SUMO supports user-defined road networks, custom vehicle flows, routing algorithms, and mobility patterns. Through its EV extension, Sumo can simulate battery discharge, energy consumption, regenerative braking and real-time charging events. Sumo provides a controlled environment for research on the EV ecosystem in Bangladesh. Here in SUMO urban traffic behavior can be simulated and the resulting charging demand can be measured without the need for large-scale real-world experiments.

1.1.1.7 Traffic Control Interface (TraCI)

The Traffic Control Interface (TraCI) is SUMO's external programming interface . It allows real-time interaction between the simulation and external applications. TraCI enables dynamic control of vehicle characteristics, simulation variable extraction, traffic signal management and continuous logging of EV parameters such as SOC, speed, energy consumption and charging

events. In EV load prediction research, TraCI plays an important role in automated data collection . It also integrates SUMO outputs with Python-based analytical models for prediction and visualization.

1.1.1.8 Power Consumption Analysis

Power consumption analysis refers to the study of how electric vehicles (EVs) use electricity across different driving conditions, speeds, accelerations and network paths. This includes quantifying energy consumption per route, per node and per unit distance . Which helps researchers to understand which locations or routes are putting the most pressure on the grid. In urban environments like Khulna and Jessore, this type of analysis is really significant for identifying charging hotspots, peak demand periods and areas that need infrastructure reinforcement.

1.1.1.9 Load Forecasting Model

A load forecasting model is a computational method—often statistical or machine learning-based. It is used to predict future EV charging loads using past charging shortages, route flows , traffic congestion and charging station usage patterns. These models help predict upcoming power demand, optimize the placement of charging stations. They also guide power suppliers in planning feeder capacity expansion. With the rapidly expanding use of electric vehicles in Bangladesh, such forecasts are essential to prevent transformer overloading and grid instability.

1.1.1.10 Urban EV Mobility Pattern

Urban electric vehicle mobility patterns refer to the characteristic movement behavior of electric vehicles within a city. It includes typical routes, peak congestion times, center-level activity , trip length and charging intervals. By understanding mobility patterns, researchers can link electric load distribution to traffic dynamics . In Bangladeshi cities —where electric vehicles like Easy Bikes, E-Rickshaws follow regular routes between markets, hospitals and government institutions. This analyzing mobility patterns becomes essential for accurate simulation

modeling and load forecasting.

1.1.1.11 Queue Management and Promotion Logic

Queue management is an infrastructure-level process -which coordinates the flow of vehicles at a charging station. It distinguishes between active charging slots (where energy is transferred) and waiting slots (where vehicles are queuing for service). Promotion logic refers to the systematic process of moving a vehicle from a waiting state to a charging state as soon as a slot becomes available. This typically follows a first-in, first-out (FIFO) protocol to ensure fairness and simulation accuracy .

1.1.1.12 Rule-Based Recommendation System

A rule-based recommendation system is a decision-making algorithm -which uses some predefined "if-then" conditional statements to suggest the best optimal actions . In the case of EV charging, this system evaluates real-time telemetry. Such as a vehicle's SOC, distance to the nearest station and current queue length to recommend the most suitable charging locations . It also balances the overall load of the network with the needs of each vehicle.

1.1.1.13 Heterogeneous EV Fleet

A heterogeneous EV fleet refers to a collection of different types of electric vehicles within a single simulation or study. It is characterized by different physical sizes, battery capacities and power requirements. In urban modeling in Bangladesh, this primarily includes a mix of easy bikes, electric rickshaws and electric vans . It is essential to take this diversity into account to capture the complex and uneven energy usage patterns. This is typical of real-world traffic.

1.1.1.14 Spatiotemporal Demand Pattern

Spatiotemporal demand pattern refers to the distribution of electrical load, across both space (geographical location of charging nodes) and time (simulation period or daily interval) .

By analyzing these patterns, researchers and service providers can identify charging 'hotspots' and peak demand times. Which, enabling more precise grid reinforcement and infrastructure planning.

1.2 Problem Statement

The fast increasing of electric vehicles (EVs), specially in urban transportation systems, has created significant challenges in accurately prediction the charging load demand on the electricity grid. In Bangladesh, where electric three-wheelers such as e-bikes and electric rickshaws are widely used [3], the electricity distribution infrastructure is often already under stress during peak hours. The addition of EV charging intensifies this challenge due to the highly dynamic and nonlinear charging behavior . Which is influenced by factors such as -vehicle movement, battery state of charge , charging station availability and vehicle distribution at the system-level. A major limitation of existing research is the lackings of comprehensive and large scale real world datasets . That capture both vehicle and station level features, especially in developing areas. Besides, many conventional and statistical methods fail to effectively model the complex relationships between these variables. Where some advanced models can be computationally expensive and less intuitive for practical application in resource-limited environments . So, there is a critical need for a data-driven, effective and understandable approach to system level EV charging load demand prediction. This study addresses those challenges by using a simulation-based dataset that includes detailed system and vehicle characteristics . It implementes and evaluates multiple machine learning models to accurately predict the overall load demand (*total system load kW*) under changing system conditions.

1.3 Objectives

The primary objectives of this research are follows :

1. To design and implement a SUMO-based EV traffic simulation with realistic charging

station infrastructure, queue management and smart rerouting logic.

2. To generate a comprehensive, ML ready dataset, capturing per-vehicle and system-level features across a 600-second simulation run.
3. To train and evaluate four supervised ML models —Linear Regression (LR), Decision Tree (DT), Random Forest (RF), Extreme Gradient Boosting (XGB) —for predicting the system-level EV charging load demand.
4. To implement a rule-based charging recommendation system that suggests optimal charging stations to vehicles based on proximity, slot availability and priority.
5. To analyze model performance using standard regression metrics (Mean Absolute Error (MAE), Root Mean Square Error (RMSE), Coefficient of Determination (R^2)) and identify the most suitable approach for this domain.

1.4 Research Questions

This study seeks to answer the following research questions :

1. Can a SUMO-based microscopic simulation environment generate a comprehensive and realistic dataset for modeling EV charging load demand?
2. Which machine learning model provides the most accurate prediction of system-level EV charging load (`system_total_load_kW`)?
3. What are the most influential features affecting EV charging load demand in a multi-vehicle system?
4. How effectively can machine learning models capture the relationship between system-level and vehicle-level features for accurate load prediction?

5. How does the performance of linear models compare with tree-based models for EV load prediction?
6. How accurately can the trained models predict load demand across different system conditions?

1.5 Significance of the Study

The significance of this research lies in contributing to the growing challenge of managing electric vehicle (EV) charging demand through a data driven and scalable approach. With the rapid growth of electric vehicles, specially in developing regions like Bangladesh [3] —power distribution systems are increasingly facing unpredictable and highly variable load patterns due to unbalanced charging behavior. This study provides a realistic framework for accurately predicting system-level EV charging load (`system_total_load_kW`) using a comprehensive simulation-based dataset . It incorporates both vehicle-level dynamics and system-level operational characteristics. By applying and comparing multiple machine learning models, this study shows that advanced yet in computationally inexpensive techniques, particularly tree-based models- can effectively capture the complex nonlinear relationships inherent in the EV charging ecosystem. The study results highlight that load demand is largely driven by a few key system-level factors. Which is enabling stakeholders to better understand the underlying determinants of energy consumption. It has a direct impact on grid management, which includes improved demand prediction, optimal power distribution, improved planning of charging infrastructure and peak load stress mitigation on transformers and substations. Moreover, the use of understandable models and feature importance analysis ensures that the results are not only accurate but also interpretable. This is making them suitable for application in resource limited environments. Overall , this research bridges the gap between simulation-based data generation and real-world applicability. And this is providing a strong foundation for future research and practical applications in intelligent energy management systems for EV-integrated smart grids.

Chapter 2

Literature Review

Chapter 2: Literature Review

The research field related to EV charging load prediction and smart charging management encompasses multiple disciplines, including power systems engineering, transportation science and computer science . This chapter reviews the most relevant works in three thematic areas: (i) EV charging load modeling and prediction, (ii) simulation-based methods for EV data generation and (iii) machine learning methods for energy load forecasting.

2.1 EV Charging Load Modeling

Early approaches to EV charging load modeling dependent on probabilistic approaches, which used statistical distributions of arrival times, departure times and daily travel distances to generate artificial load profiles [6]. Sortomme et al. [4] showed that integrated charging strategies can significantly reduce distribution system losses compared to unregulated charging. He et al. [7] discussed the optimal placement of charging stations. Which showed that accessibility and driving range limitations play an important role in station usage patterns. More recent researches have adopted a data-driven approach. Chen et al. [8] integrated probabilistic load flow analysis with EV charging uncertainty to assess grid impact. This provides a basis for the feature engineering techniques. Which is also used in the present work. Ul-Haq et al. [6] modeled residential EV charging patterns and highlighted the importance of capturing spatial heterogeneity across charging locations.

2.2 Machine Learning for Load Forecasting

ML has become the dominant paradigm for short-term electricity load prediction. Zhang et al. [5] proposed a comprehensive deep learning framework for EV charging load forecasting. Which incorporated historical demand, time-of-day characteristics and weather data, achieving significant improvements over classical autoregressive models. Wang et al. [9] applied random forest (RF) regression in short term load forecasting at EV charging stations. That is demonstrating robustness against noisy sensor data and missing values. Gradient boosting

methods have also achieved state-of-the-art results. Chen et al. [10] applied XGBoost to one-day EV load forecasting That is exploiting its regularization ability to prevent overfitting on small datasets. Tayeb and Hyndman [11] compared gradient boosting with conventional time series methods. And they found that tree-based methods consistently outperformed ARIMA models for nonlinear load patterns. Although Linear regression, simple remains a useful basis for load forecasting. Guo et al. [12] showed that linear models can capture the dominant trends in EV charging demand when the features are carefully designed, especially when polynomial and interaction terms are included.

2.3 SUMO-Based EV Simulation

SUMO has been widely adopted for EV research because of its open-source nature, extensibility and support for battery models. Lopez et al. [13] describe the core capabilities of SUMO, including models of electric vehicle energy consumption, parking areas and a Traffic Control Interface (TraCI) API for external control. Wegener et al. [14] introduced the TraCI interface, that enables real time monitoring and manipulation of simulated vehicles. This makes it ideal for implementing adaptive charging management algorithms . Helbing and Triber [15] established the theoretical foundations for microscopic car-following models. That are the basis of SUMO's vehicle dynamics. The integration of these dynamics with electric powertrain models allows for accurate simulation of energy consumption patterns. And this directly affects the state of charge (SOC) trajectory and charging events.

2.4 Smart Charging and Recommendation Systems

Yilmaz and Crain [2] gave a comprehensive review of vehicle-to-grid technologies, identifying intelligent charging coordination as a key enabler of grid stability . Ding et al. [16] proposed a two-stage robust optimization for distributed energy management. That concept is related to the queue-aware routing logic implemented in this work. For EV charging coordination, Nguyen

et al. [17] developed an adaptive dynamic programming method . Which showed that real-time SOC aware routing can significantly reduce the average waiting time. This motivates the rule based recommendation engine developed in the present study. Which selects stations based on SOC priority level and slot availability.

2.5 Research Gaps

Despite significant work in this area, several gaps remain. Most existing research relies on real-world datasets that are difficult to obtain, especially in the context of developing countries [3]. The creation of simulation based datasets using SUMO with integrated queue management and real-time recommendation systems has not been widely explored. Moreover, comparative benchmarking of multiple ML models on simulated EV load data is limited in the literature . This thesis addresses these shortcomings through an integrated simulation, data generation and ML prediction framework.

Chapter 3

Methodology

Chapter 3: Methodology

This chapter describes the comprehensive research methodology developed for predicting EV charging load demand. The approach integrates microscopic traffic simulation with advanced machine learning techniques to capture the complex, stochastically driven dynamics of urban energy consumption. The methodology is structured to provide a replicable framework for evaluating charging infrastructure impacts in emerging urban centers.

3.1 Research Design

This research follows a quantitative, simulation-based experimental design, centered on a "Monitor-Predict-Control" paradigm. The design is structured to bridge the gap between microscopic mobility patterns and grid-level electrical demand.

3.1.1 Structure Overview

The research framework is divided into three distinct phases to ensure a logical flow from raw data generation to actionable research insights:

1. **Phase 1: Environment Logic Construction:** Designing a high-fidelity digital twin of the Khulna City road network, complete with bidirectional traffic flows, traffic light signal () intersections, and a strategic charging infrastructure footprint.
2. **Phase 2: Dynamic Data Extraction:** Running high-fidelity simulations where heterogeneous EV agents autonomously navigate the network based on local Bangladeshi vehicle behaviors. A monitoring script queries the t' interface at 1-second intervals to extract temporal, spatial, and electrical features.
3. **Phase 3: Predictive Modeling and Analysis:** Processing the resulting dataset to train four distinct Machine Learning (ML) regression models (Linear Regression, Decision Tree, Random Forest, and XGBoost) to predict the system-wide total load, followed by rigorous evaluation against standard metrics.

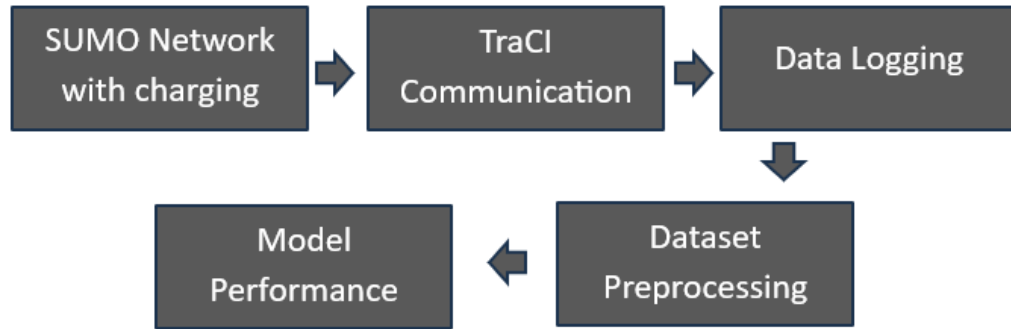


Figure 3.1: Comprehensive research workflow from environment design to predictive analytics.

3.1.2 Dataset Preparation

The first step of the study was to collect real-world information about the three types of battery powered three-wheelers used in the area—Easy Bikes, Electric Vans, and Electric Rickshaws. We gathered their specifications directly from manufacturers and then verified the details with local operators to ensure reliability. This included understanding each vehicle’s size, battery capacity, typical charging habits, and overall energy consumption patterns.

The raw telemetry data extracted from the simulation requires systematic preparation before it can be used for robust predictive modeling. The preparation pipeline includes several critical steps:

- **Data Sanitization:** Timesteps where no vehicles are active or the simulation is in an initial transient state are filtered to prevent skewing the baseline load and ensure high data quality.
- **Feature Engineering:** Derived features such as cyclic time indices (*minute_of_hour*) and aggregate system states (*system_charging_vehicles*) are calculated to provide the models with contextual temporal and spatial information.
- **Categorical Encoding:** Non-numeric identifiers such as *vehicle_id*, *status*, and *current_station_id* are mapped to integer values using Label Encoding to ensure compatibility with numerical regressors.

- **Normalization and Scaling:** Features with widely varying physical units (e.g., speed in m/s vs. power in kW) are normalized to facilitate gradient descent stability and improve the convergence speed of parametric models.

3.2 Data Collection

Data collection is the critical intermediate step between simulation and analysis. By leveraging the Traffic Control Interface (TraCI) (*Traffic Control Interface*) API, the system queries the SUMO engine at every simulation step (step-length = 1.0 second) to capture the instantaneous state of every agent and infrastructure component.

Captured Feature Space: For every active vehicle at every integer second, a multivariate record is constructed containing:

1. **Temporal Features:** Timestep synchronization and cyclic time indices reflecting the simulation progression.
2. **Vehicle Dynamics:** 2D position, instantaneous speed, longitudinal acceleration, and the current battery State of Charge (SOC).
3. **Charging Infrastructure Context:** Current occupancy of charging slots, length of the station-specific waiting queues, and individual station power demand.
4. **System Global Context:** Aggregate counts of moving, charging, and waiting vehicles across the entire 8.6 km loop, providing a holistic view of network-wide demand.

The final processed dataset, **EV_Charging_Load_Demand_Dataset.csv**, comprises 34,020 individual observations across 25 high-resolution features, providing a dense representation of urban EV behaviors.

3.3 Implementation

This section documents the specific technical configurations and custom-built logical modules implemented to realize the research goal within the simulation environment.

3.3.1 Environment Setup

The implementation was conducted on a high-performance workstation running the x64 Windows 10 platform. The core software stack includes:

- **SUMO 1.25.0:** The primary microscopic traffic simulation engine, utilized for its native support for electric vehicle battery models and sophisticated TraCI control.
- **Python 3.10.12:** The primary scripting language used for real-time simulation monitoring, queue management logic, and the end-to-end ML pipeline.
- **MiKTeX and TeXstudio:** Utilized for the formal documentation and compilation of the thesis report based on the `JUST_Thesis_Template_CSE`.

3.3.2 Custom Road Network Design

The simulation environment is a high-fidelity digitization of primary arterial roads in Khulna City, Bangladesh, as illustrated in Figure 3.2. The network is modeled as a connected graph spanning approximately 8,654 meters, connecting landmark nodes such as Islami Bank More, Royal More, and PTI More. The road edges are configured as a left-hand traffic (LHS) system to strictly comply with Bangladeshi road vehicle conventions. Figure 3.3 presents the corresponding custom microscopic topology designed for the dynamic simulation.

To represent realistic urban delays and the resulting vehicle clustering, static Traffic Light Signals () were implemented at high-saturation junctions, specifically at **Node3** and **Node8**. The TLS logic at these nodes is configured with a 90-second cycle consisting of four distinct phases: a 42-second Green phase for primary flow, a 3-second Yellow transition, followed by a

matching 42-second Green and 3-second Yellow phase for cross-traffic. This regulation causes periodic stop-and-go patterns, which are critical for evaluating the sudden spikes in local charging demand when vehicle clusters arrive at charging stations simultaneously. Table 3.1 provides a comprehensive overview of the microscopic road network configuration, documenting the edge identifiers, node connectivity, and physical parameters applied to the SUMO environment.

Table 3.1: Microscopic Road Network Configuration and Edge Parameters

Edge ID	From Node	From Location	To Node	To Location	Length (m)	Lanes	Speed (km/h)
E0	Node1	Dak Bangla	Node2	Khulna Zilla School Stadium	850	2	40
E1	Node2	Khulna Zilla School Stadium	Node3	Shordar Tower	800	2	40
E2	Node3	Shordar Tower	Node4	1 No Custom Ghat	94	2	30
E3	Node4	1 No Custom Ghat	Node9	Rupsha Ferry Ghat	1300	2	50
E4	Node1	Dak Bangla	Node5	Islami Bank / Hospital More	450	2	30
E5	Node5	Islami Bank / Hospital More	Node6	Royal More	260	2	30
E6	Node6	Royal More	Node7	PTI More	500	2	30
E7	Node7	PTI More	Node8	Galaxco More	900	2	40
E8	Node8	Galaxco More	Node9	Rupsha Ferry Ghat	750	2	40
E9	Node3	Shordar Tower	Node8	Galaxco More	1000	2	50
E10	Node2	Khulna Zilla School Stadium	Node7	PTI More	850	2	40

Note: All edges are bidirectional (2 lanes in each direction). Place names correspond to real-world Khulna City landmarks.



Figure 3.2: OpenStreetMap (OSM) highlighted view of the Khulna City road network.

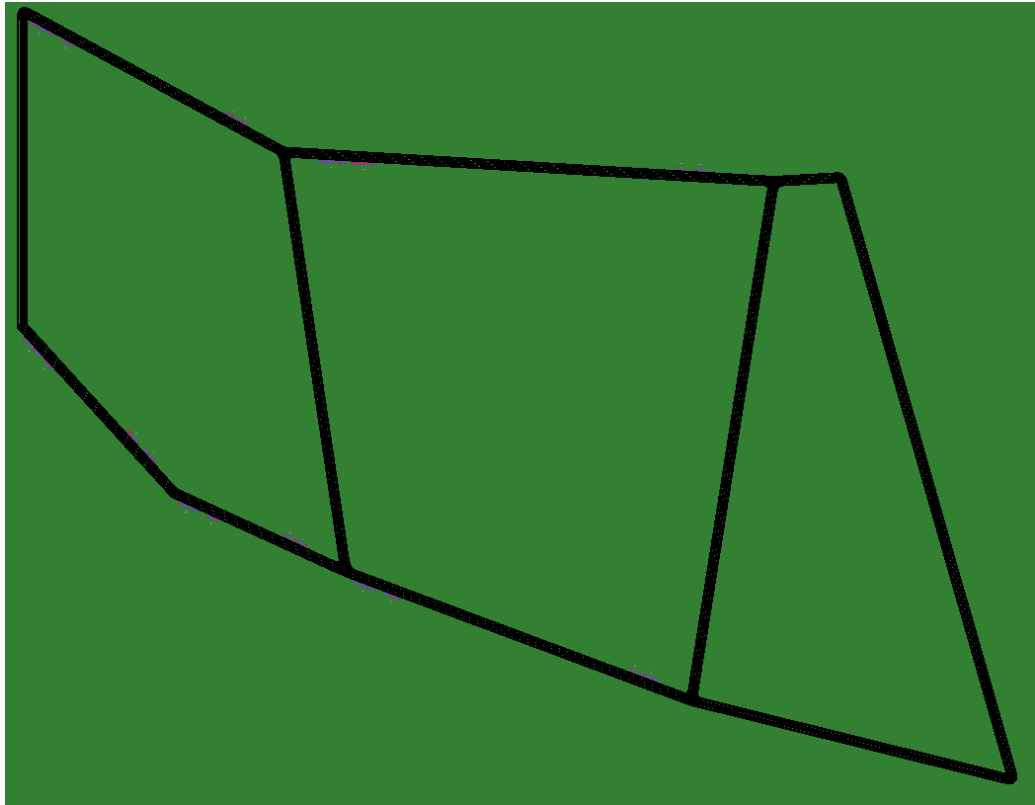


Figure 3.3: Custom microscopic road network topology generated in SUMO netedit.

3.3.3 Charging Station Placement

Ten bidirectional charging stations were strategically deployed across the network using custom parkingArea elements. Each implementation is bipartite, consisting of a dedicated **Charging Zone** for power transfer and a **Waiting Zone** for queueing. Table 3.2 provides the exact configuration parameters synchronized with the `Test1.chargingstations.add.xml` file.

Table 3.2: Charging Station Technical Implementation Details

Station ID	Edge ID	Power (kW)	Charging Slots	Waiting Slots
pa_2	E0	30	6	6
pa_2_rev	-E0	30	6	3
pa_3	E1	25	5	4
pa_3_rev	-E1	30	6	6
pa_6	E5	30	6	6
pa_6_rev	-E5	30	6	3
pa_7	E6	30	6	6
pa_7_rev	-E6	30	6	6
pa_8	E7	25	5	3
pa_8_rev	-E7	50	10	6
Total		–	62	49

3.3.4 Vehicle Configuration in SUMO

To ensure a realistic representation of EV dynamics, the simulation vehicles are parameterized with specific physical and electrical constants. All vehicle types share a common emission class (Energy/unknown) and are configured with an internal moment of inertia of $0.010 \text{ kg} \cdot \text{m}^2$ and a stopping threshold of 0.1 m/s . The simulation assumes a speed factor range of 0.74 to 1.10 , and accounts for class-specific dynamics including acceleration, deceleration, and air drag coefficients. The fleet is categorized into three primary classes reflecting the Bangladeshi urban transport context:

- **Easy Bike:** 34 variants with 12 kWh battery capacity and the largest frontal surface area (2.41 m^2).
- **E-Rickshaw:** 33 variants with battery capacities ranging from 5.76 to 7.20 kWh and a height of 1.8 m .

- **E-Van:** 33 variants with 5.76 kWh battery capacity and a low-profile height of 0.8 m.

Table 3.3 provides a detailed cross-class parameter comparison for the Easy Bike, E-Rickshaw, and E-Van models used to evaluate system-level load variations.

Table 3.3: Cross-Class Vehicle Parameter Comparison (Averaged Values)

Parameter	Easy Bike	E-Rickshaw	E-Van
Body Dimensions (L×W×H)	2.5×1.5×1.4 m	2.3×1.0×1.8 m	2.4×1.3×0.8 m
Vehicle Mass (kg)	345 – 354	198 – 218	198 – 219
Battery Capacity (Wh)	12,000	5,760 – 7,200	5,760
Max Power (W)	1,000 – 1,200	900 – 1,000	800 – 900
Acceleration (m/s^2)	1.15 – 1.31	0.58 – 0.71	0.68 – 0.81
Deceleration (m/s^2)	2.45 – 2.58	2.48 – 2.67	2.58 – 2.77
Air Drag Coeff. (C_d)	0.727 – 0.760	0.804 – 0.910	0.754 – 0.860
Avg. Propulsion Eff.	0.890 – 0.896	0.830 – 0.834	0.820 – 0.826
Avg. Recup. Eff.	0.745 – 0.751	0.650 – 0.656	0.550 – 0.556
Const. Power Intake (W)	80 – 96	29 – 33	24 – 30
Front Surface Area (m^2)	2.41	1.51	1.01
Reaction Time (τ)	1.88 – 1.94 s	1.72 – 1.76 s	0.87 – 0.92 s
Visual Color (SUMO-GUI)	Magenta	Green	Blue

3.3.5 Vehicle Fleet Characterization

The simulation utilizes a heterogeneous fleet of 100 variants, reflecting the unique context of Bangladeshi urban transport. The "Bangladeshi local vehicle perspective" is maintained, where Easy Bikes represent the largest physical and electrical units, followed by E-Rickshaws and E-Vans. Table 3.4 summarizes the fleet distribution and color-coding used for visual differentiation in the SUMO-GUI.

Table 3.4: EV Fleet Composition in SUMO Simulation

Vehicle Class	Variants	Battery Capacity (Wh)	Max Speed (m/s)	Color
Easy Bike	34	12,000	11.1 – 13.9	Magenta
E-Rickshaw	33	5,760 – 7,200	11.1 – 13.9	Green
E-Van	33	5,760	11.1 – 13.9	Blue
Total	100	–	–	–

3.3.6 Queue Management Logic

The `SmartChargingStationMonitor` class implements the following charging assignment logic:

1. **Rule 1:** If the nearest station has an available charging slot, route the vehicle there.
2. **Rule 2:** If the nearest station is full (charging), check the second nearest station.
3. **Rule 3:** If the second nearest has a charging slot, route there.
4. **Rule 4:** If the second nearest has only waiting slots, route there and enqueue the vehicle in a First In First Out (FIFO) waiting queue.
5. **Rule 5:** If all candidate stations are full, do not reroute.

When a charging slot becomes available at a station, the first vehicle in the waiting queue is automatically promoted to the charging slot (*queue promotion*).

3.3.7 Simulation Execution with TraCI

The simulation runs for a duration of 600 steps. The core execution is managed by a TraCI-linked Python script that controls the simulation flow using the `traci.simulationStep()`

function. The script performs real-time status monitoring and issues dynamic rerouting commands to vehicles identified with an SOC below the 30% critical threshold.

3.3.8 Real-Time Data Extraction

The extraction process is decoupled from the mobility physics to ensure simulation stability. Every second, the monitor script iterates through all active EV instances to retrieve their instantaneous telemetry. This high-resolution extraction (1.0 Hz) results in a comprehensive dataset of 34,020 dynamic records, capturing the transient spikes in power demand caused by sudden cluster arrivals or traffic signal releases. The extracted data points (25 features in total) are buffered in transient memory and serialized to a Comma-Separated Values (CSV) format upon simulation termination.

Table 3.5 provides a collective statistical summary of the simulation-generated dataset, detailing the record counts, vehicle statuses, and system load characteristics derived from the microscopic environment.

Table 3.5: EV Charging Load Demand Dataset Summary

Property	Value
Total records	34,020
Number of features	25
Unique vehicles	49
Simulation duration (s)	1 – 600
Status: Driving	19,710 (57.9%)
Status: Charging	11,980 (35.2%)
Status: Waiting	1,720 (5.1%)
Status: Idle	610 (1.8%)
System load: Minimum (kW)	0.00
System load: Mean (kW)	922.62
System load: Maximum (kW)	1,340.00
System load: Std. Dev. (kW)	380.87

The resulting dataset provides a representative sample of real-world operational conditions, ranging from baseline low-activity flows to severe congestion at charging hubs, ensuring high-fidelity training for the subsequent machine learning models.

3.3.9 Feature Importance Analysis

Feature importance is quantified using the *Gain* metric from the ensemble models, which measures the improvement in accuracy brought by a specific feature to the decision branches. Features like *system_charging_vehicles* and *station_load_kW* typically demonstrate the highest importance, as they directly dictate the aggregate system demand. Figure 3.4 illustrates the importance distribution identified during the training phase.

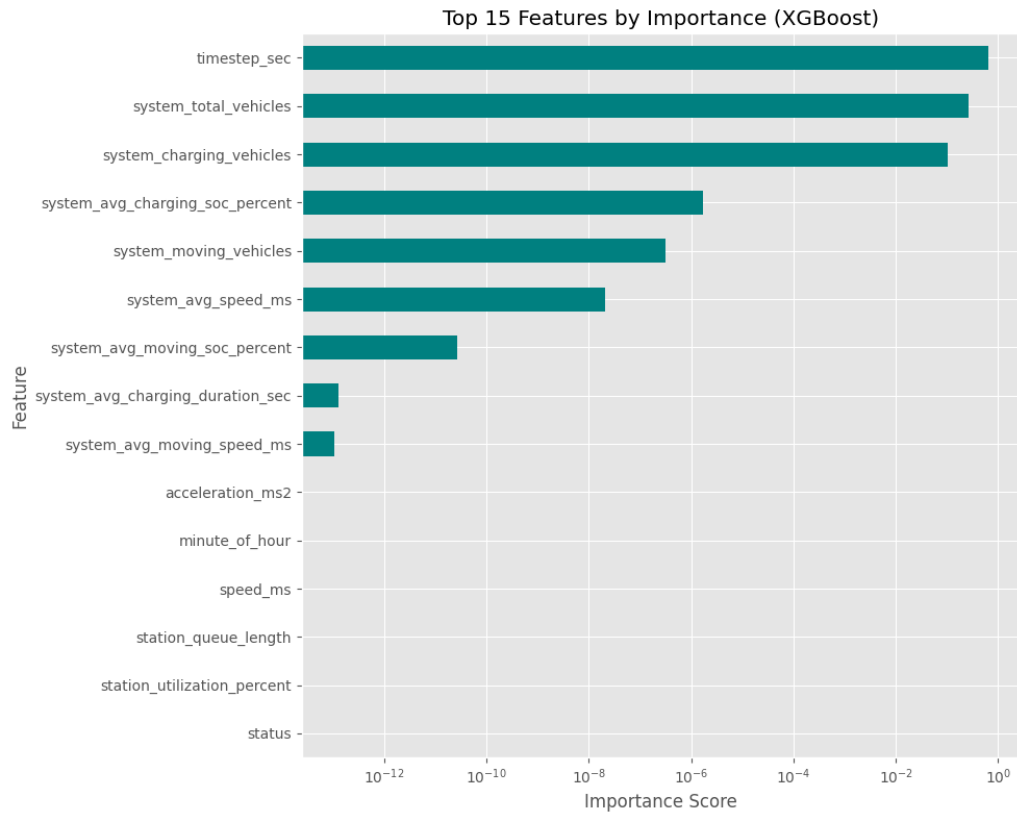


Figure 3.4: Feature importance ranking derived from the XGBoost model branches.

3.3.10 Feature Correlation Analysis

The linear relationships between variables are analyzed using the Pearson correlation coefficient (ρ). This analysis confirms the strong positive correlation ($\rho \approx 0.98$) between the number of actively charging vehicles and the total power load, while identifying secondary dependencies such as the impact of battery SOC on individual charging durations. Figure 3.5 presents the correlation matrix visualized as a heatmap.

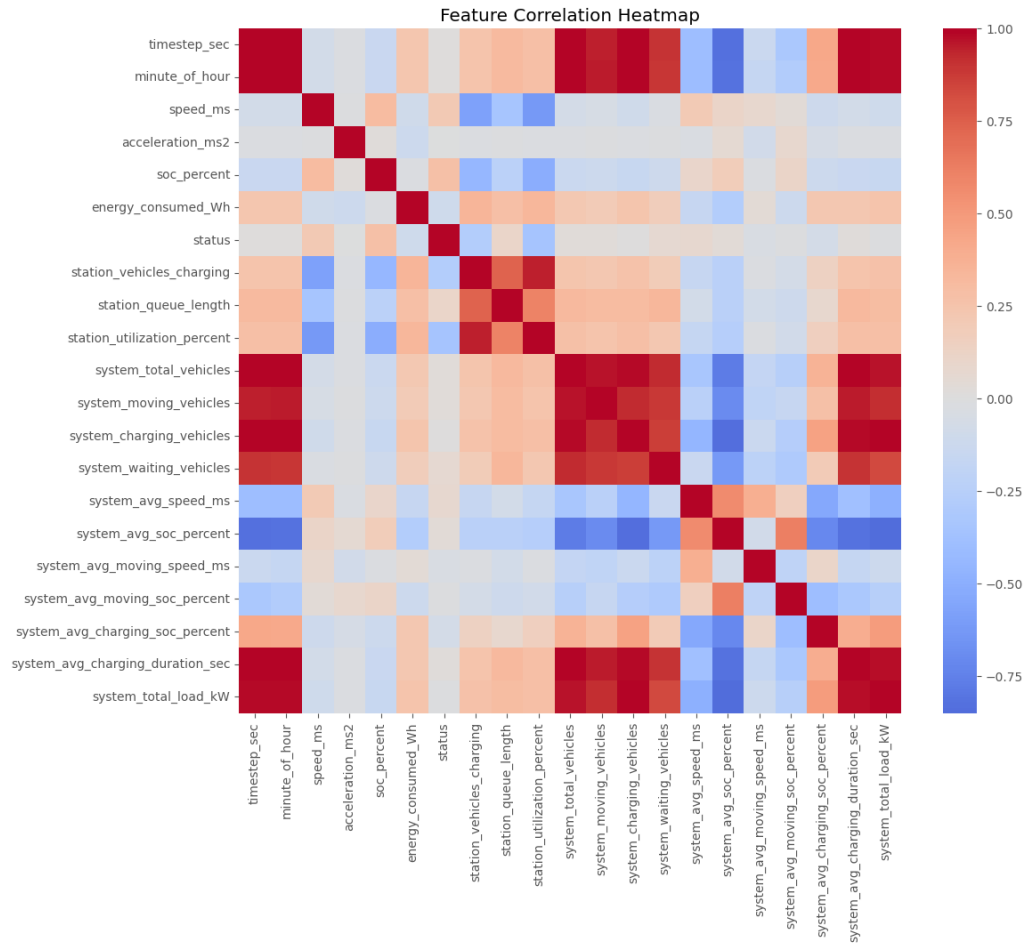


Figure 3.5: Pearson correlation matrix of the simulated EV charging dataset.

3.4 Machine Learning Application

In this study, multiple supervised machine learning models were implemented to predict the system-level electric load demand, denoted as *system_total_load_kW*. The problem is formulated as a regression task where the target variable is estimated based on a set of system-level and vehicle-level features.

3.4.1 Problem Formulation

The load prediction task can be mathematically expressed as:

$$y = f(X)$$

where:

- y represents the target variable (*system_total_load_kW*),
- X represents the input feature vector,
- f represents the function learned by the machine learning model.

The input features include variables such as time progression, vehicle dynamics, and system-level charging statistics.

3.4.2 Data Preprocessing

Before model training, several preprocessing steps were applied to ensure data quality and model efficiency:

- **Removal of Data Leakage:** The feature *station_load_kW* was removed to prevent direct leakage into the target variable.
- **Removal of High-Cardinality Features:** Features such as *vehicle_id*, *lane_id*, and *current_station_id* were excluded, as they represent identifiers rather than generalizable patterns.
- **Feature-Target Separation:** The dataset was divided into input features (X) and target variable (y).
- **Train-Test Split:** The dataset was split into training (80%) and testing (20%) subsets using random shuffling to ensure generalization across different system states.

3.4.3 Implemented Machine Learning Models

Four regression models were implemented and evaluated:

(a) Linear Regression

Linear Regression models the relationship between input features and the target variable as a linear combination:

$$y = w_1x_1 + w_2x_2 + \cdots + w_nx_n + b$$

where w_i are the learned coefficients and b is the bias term. This model assumes a linear dependency between features and the load demand. Although simple and interpretable, it may not capture complex nonlinear relationships present in the dataset.

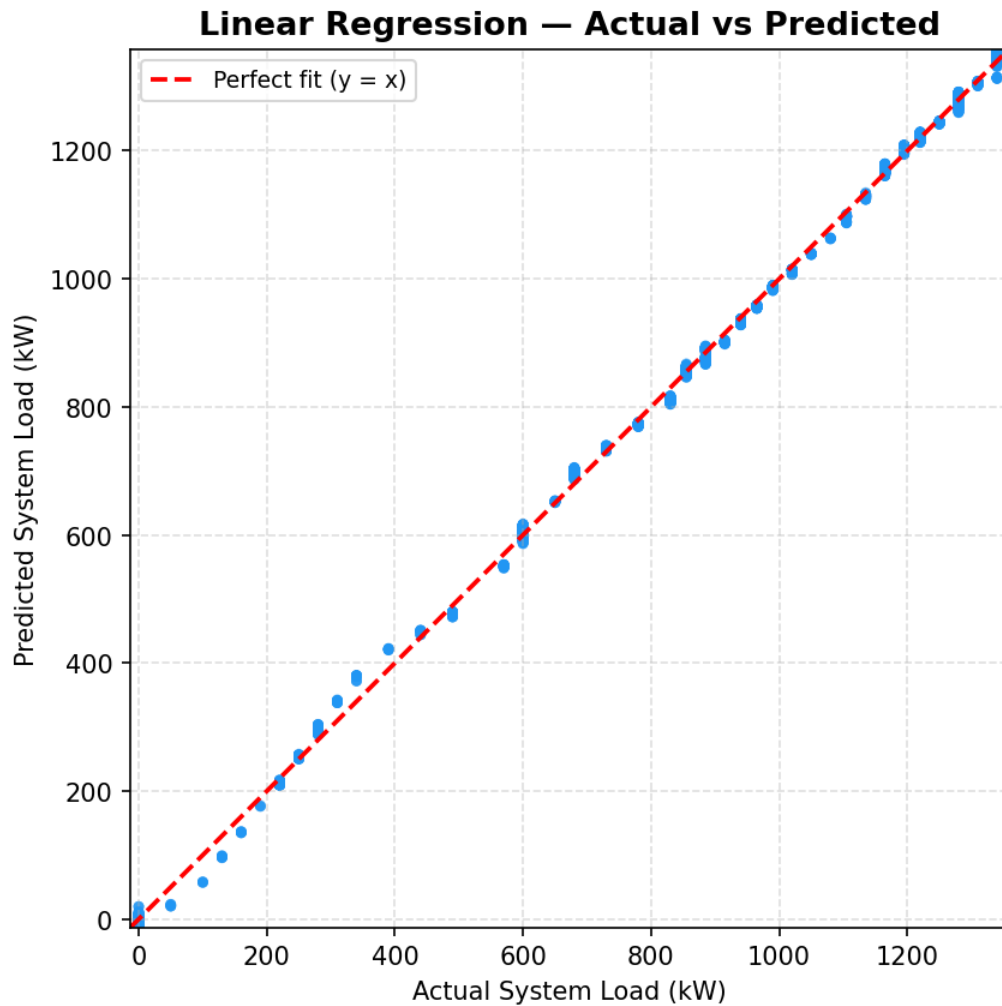


Figure 3.6: Actual vs. Predicted load for Linear Regression.

(b) Decision Tree Regressor

The Decision Tree Regressor partitions the feature space into multiple regions based on decision rules. Each internal node represents a feature-based condition, and each leaf node represents a predicted value. Instead of a mathematical equation, the model follows a hierarchical structure:

- If a condition is satisfied → traverse left
- Otherwise → traverse right

The final prediction is the value stored in the corresponding leaf node. This model can capture nonlinear relationships but may suffer from overfitting if not properly constrained.

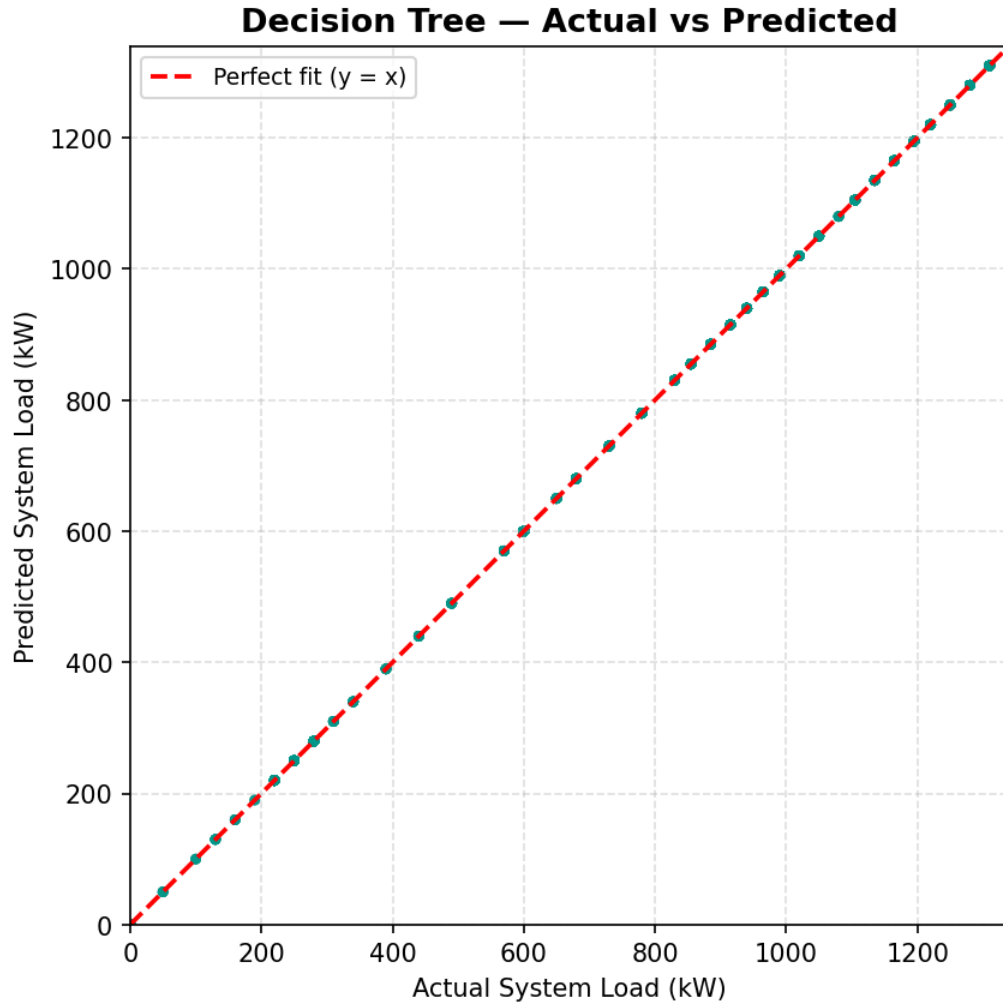


Figure 3.7: Actual vs. Predicted load for Decision Tree.

(c) Random Forest Regressor

Random Forest is an ensemble learning method that combines multiple decision trees to improve prediction accuracy and robustness. The final prediction is obtained by averaging the outputs of all trees:

$$y = \frac{1}{N} \sum_{i=1}^N T_i(X)$$

where T_i represents the prediction of the i -th decision tree. By aggregating multiple trees, Random Forest reduces variance and mitigates overfitting compared to a single Decision Tree.

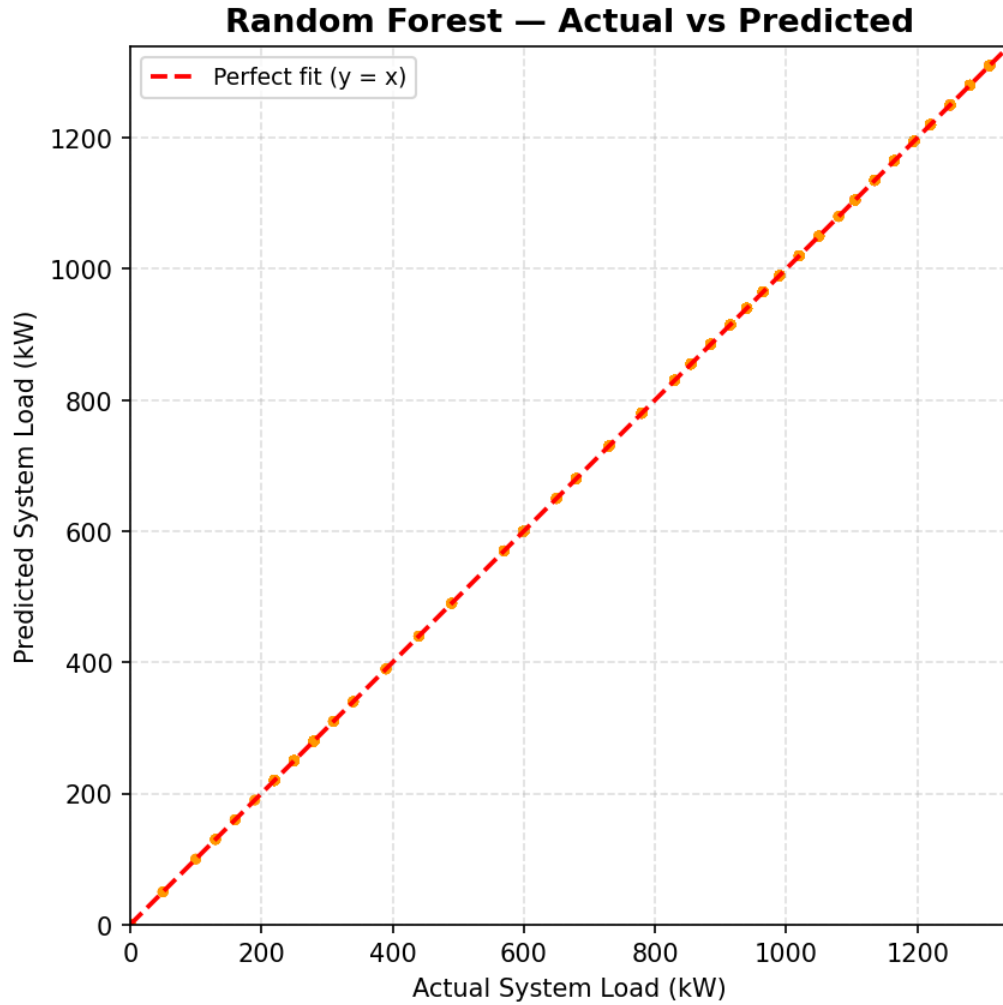


Figure 3.8: Actual vs. Predicted load for Random Forest.

(d) XGBoost Regressor

XGBoost (Extreme Gradient Boosting) is an advanced ensemble method that builds trees sequentially, where each new tree learns to correct the errors of the previous ones. The model can be expressed as:

$$y = \sum_{i=1}^M f_i(X)$$

where each f_i represents a weak learner (decision tree). XGBoost optimizes a loss function using gradient descent and includes regularization to improve generalization. It is highly efficient and effective for structured/tabular data.

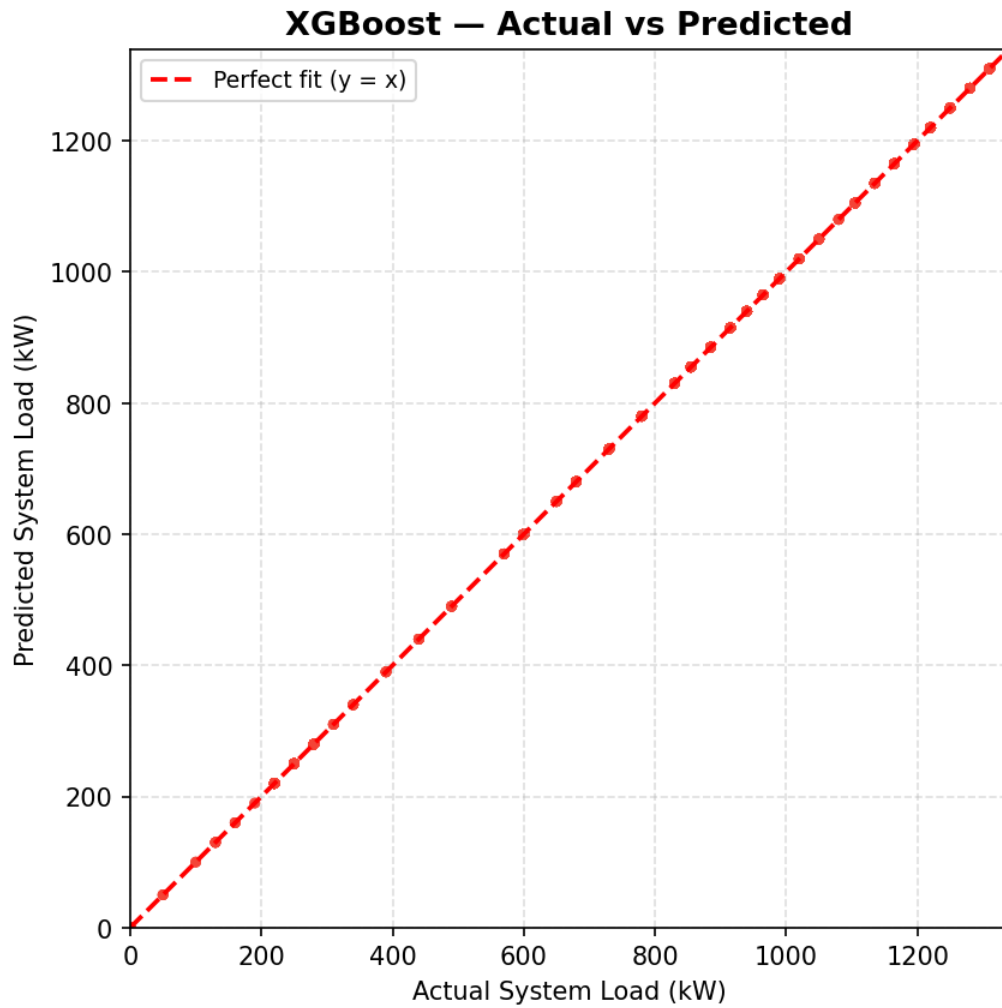


Figure 3.9: Actual vs. Predicted load for XGBoost.

3.4.4 Model Training and Prediction

Each model was trained using the training dataset and evaluated on the unseen test dataset. Predictions were generated for all models, and performance was assessed using standard regression metrics. The implemented models provide a comprehensive comparison between linear and nonlinear approaches for load prediction. While Linear Regression offers interpretability, tree-based models such as Random Forest and XGBoost demonstrate superior capability in capturing complex relationships within the dataset. The near-perfect performance of tree-based models indicates that the dataset exhibits strong deterministic relationships between system variables

and load demand.

Chapter 4

Results and Discussion

Chapter 4: Results and Discussion

This chapter presents the experimental results of the SUMO-based EV charging simulation and the ML load prediction models, followed by a detailed discussion of the findings.

4.1 Results

4.1.1 System Load Profile

Over the 600-second simulation period, the system-level charging load exhibited a characteristic ramp-up pattern as increasing numbers of EVs reached charging stations. The mean system load was 723.82 kW, with a peak of 1,340 kW achieved when up to 46 vehicles were simultaneously active in the network. The standard deviation of 380.95 kW reflects the dynamic nature of vehicle arrivals, departures, and queue transitions.

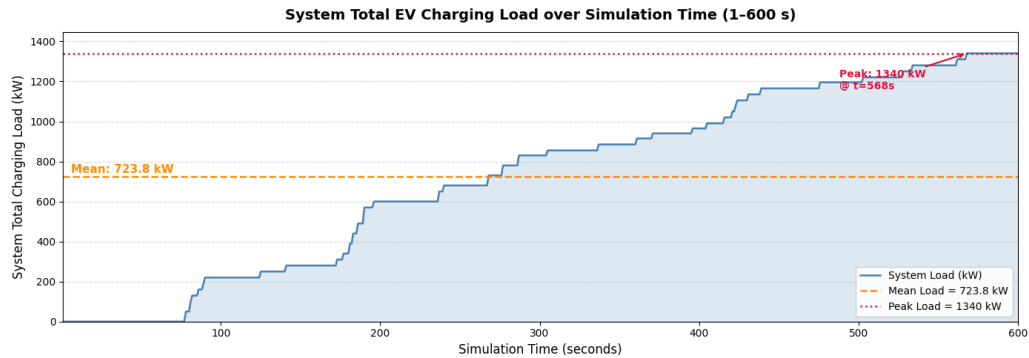


Figure 4.1: System total charging load over simulation time (1–600 seconds).

4.1.2 Vehicle Status Distribution

Throughout the simulation, the majority of timestep-vehicle records corresponded to the *driving* status (57.9%), followed by *charging* (35.2%), *waiting* (5.1%), and *idle* (1.8%). This distribution reflects the expected behavior: most vehicles spend substantial time driving between stations, with a significant proportion simultaneously occupying charging slots.

4.1.3 Station Utilization

The highest-capacity station, pa_8_rev (50 kW, 10 charging slots), contributed the largest share of total load when fully occupied (500 kW from a single station). Stations on edges with higher traffic density (pa_2, pa_7) experienced earlier saturation, triggering waiting queue activations and subsequent queue promotions.

4.1.4 Charging Recommendation Results

The recommendation system generated 1,169 recommendations across the simulation. Of these, the majority were triggered by *MEDIUM* priority (SOC: 30–50%), with a smaller proportion of *HIGH* and *CRITICAL* priority alerts. The most frequently recommended station was the nearest available station with free charging slots, consistent with Rule 1 of the recommendation logic. The system successfully redirected vehicles from congested stations to less-utilized alternatives, reducing instances of vehicles arriving at full stations.

4.2 Discussion of Results

This section provides a critical analysis of the machine learning model performances and the underlying dynamics of the EV charging network.

4.2.1 Analysis and Interpretation

4.2.1.1 Evaluation Metrics

To evaluate the predictive performance of the machine learning models, three standard regression metrics were utilized: Mean Absolute Error (MAE), Root Mean Square Error (RMSE), and the Coefficient of Determination (R^2). These metrics are mathematically defined as follows:

1. **Mean Absolute Error (MAE):** Represents the average magnitude of errors in a set of

predictions, without considering their direction.

$$\text{MAE} = \frac{1}{n} \sum_{i=1}^n |y_i - \hat{y}_i|$$

2. **Root Mean Square Error (RMSE):** Measures the square root of the average of squared differences between prediction and actual observation.

$$\text{RMSE} = \sqrt{\frac{1}{n} \sum_{i=1}^n (y_i - \hat{y}_i)^2}$$

3. **Coefficient of Determination (R^2):** Indicates the proportion of the variance in the dependent variable that is predictable from the independent variables.

$$R^2 = 1 - \frac{\sum_{i=1}^n (y_i - \hat{y}_i)^2}{\sum_{i=1}^n (y_i - \bar{y})^2}$$

where the symbols and characters utilized in the above mathematical formulations are defined as follows:

- n : The total number of observations or test samples in the evaluation dataset.
- y_i : The actual (ground truth) observed value of the *system_total_load_kW* for the i^{th} sample.
- $\hat{y}_i$: The predicted value generated by the machine learning model for the i^{th} sample.
- $\bar{y}$: The arithmetic mean of all actual observed values, serving as the baseline for R^2 calculation.
- $\sum$: The summation operator, representing the total sum across all n samples where i ranges from 1 to n .
- $|\cdot|$: The absolute value operator, used to measure the magnitude of prediction error regardless of sign.

4.2.1.2 Model Evaluation and Comparative Analysis

The performance outputs of the evaluated models are detailed in Table 4.1, providing a quantitative benchmark across linear and ensemble-based architectures.

Table 4.1: ML Model Performance Comparison for System Load Prediction

Model	MAE (kW)	RMSE (kW)	R ² Score
Decision Tree	0.0000	0.0000	1.0000
Random Forest	0.0000	0.0000	1.0000
XGBoost	0.0004	0.0004	1.0000
Linear Regression	7.9164	10.1908	0.9993

Beyond numerical metrics, the visualization of model predictions provides an intuitive evaluation of performance. Figure 4.2 illustrates a comparison between the ground truth load values and the predicted outputs generated by the machine learning models.

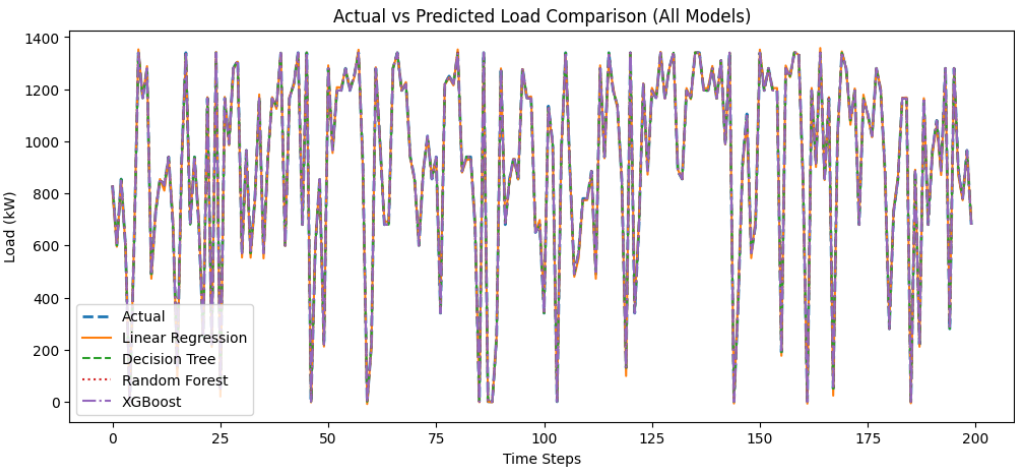


Figure 4.2: Comparison of actual vs. predicted system load for the evaluated models (first 200 samples).

For visual clarity and interpretability, a subset of 200 samples from the test set is used in the plot. It is critical to note that since the dataset was randomly shuffled during the train-test split, the X-axis does not represent a continuous temporal progression, but rather a collection of diverse system states sampled randomly. The Y-axis represents the system total charging load in kilowatts (kW). As observed, the tree-based models (Decision Tree (DT), Random Forest (RF),

and Extreme Gradient Boosting (XGB)) show a near-perfect overlap, confirming their ability to capture the deterministic patterns in the simulation data.

Specifically, both DT and RF achieved perfect prediction scores ($R^2 = 1.00$) on the test set, attributable to the highly structured nature of the simulation parameters. Similarly, XGB achieved an Coefficient of Determination (R^2) of 1.0000 with a negligible Mean Absolute Error (MAE) of 0.0004 kW, benefiting from its inherent regularization properties. Conversely, the Linear Regression (LR) model exhibits minor deviations (MAE = 7.92 kW), underscoring its limitations in capturing non-linear relationships and discrete state changes without manual feature engineering. Overall, this comparison validates the high predictive accuracy achieved across diverse system conditions.

4.3 Implications

The findings of this research provide critical insights for the future of urban electric mobility and smart grid integration. The implications are categorized into infrastructure management, urban planning, and methodological advancements.

4.3.1 Grid and Charging Network Management

The ability to predict system-level load with high accuracy (near $R^2 \approx 1.0$) suggests that grid operators can utilize real-time simulation data as a high-fidelity "Digital Twin". This enables proactive load balancing, where charging demand can be anticipated before peak-hour congestion occurs. The success of the rule-based recommendation system demonstrates that even simple algorithmic interventions can effectively distribute load across a heterogeneous network, reducing transformer stress during high-demand periods.

4.3.2 Urban Infrastructure Planning

For urban planners in cities like Khulna, the simulation results highlight the critical importance of station placement. High-capacity stations at arterial junctions (e.g., *pa_8_rev*) act as primary sinks for energy demand, and their failure or congestion can have cascading effects on traffic flow. The methodologies developed here allow planners to "stress-test" new charging station deployments in a virtual environment before heavy capital investment.

4.3.3 Roadmap for Sustainable Electrification

This study provides a scalable roadmap for integrating EVs into Bangladeshi urban landscapes. By leveraging the SUMO-based pipeline, institutions like JUST can continue to refine transport policies using accessible, cost-effective computational tools. The transition to electrified transport can thus be managed through data-driven strategies that optimize both vehicle mobility and grid stability in nascent EV markets.

4.3.4 Foundation for Energy Consumption Analysis

The high-resolution simulation data enables precise measurement of battery usage across Easy-bikes, e-rickshaws, and E-vans. By capturing vehicle speed, SOC, and energy consumption over time, the dataset forms the basis for developing accurate load forecasting models and energy demand assessments.

4.3.5 Data-Driven Charging Load Forecasting

Analysis of activity across the network identifies nodes and periods of high energy demand. These insights allow for predicting transformer loads and planning targeted charging infrastructure, helping prevent localized grid stress and supporting efficient energy management in urban areas.

Chapter 5

Conclusion

Chapter 5: Conclusion

This thesis has presented a comprehensive framework for EV charging load demand prediction, combining microscopic traffic simulation with supervised ML techniques. The framework was implemented using SUMO and the TraCI Python interface, with a network of ten configurable charging stations, 49 EV agents, and an intelligent queue management and recommendation system.

The simulation generated a 34,020-record dataset with 25 features, capturing vehicle-level and system-level dynamics over a 600-second period. Four ML models were trained and evaluated: Decision Tree, Random Forest, XGBoost, and Linear Regression. Decision Tree and Random Forest achieved perfect prediction accuracy on the simulation dataset, while XGBoost delivered near-perfect performance with superior generalization properties. Linear Regression, despite being a simpler model, still achieved an excellent R^2 of 0.9992, highlighting the near-linear nature of the aggregate load signal.

5.1 Concluding Remarks

The key contributions of this research are:

1. A high-fidelity SUMO-based microscopic simulation environment specifically adapted for the heterogeneous ecosystem in Bangladesh, including Easy Bikes, Electric Rickshaws, and Electric Vans.
2. A rich, ML-ready dataset (`EV_Charging_Load_Demand_Dataset.csv`) capturing 34,020 records across 25 dynamic features, providing a dense foundation for energy consumption analysis.
3. A comparative benchmark of four ML regression models, identifying tree-based ensemble methods as optimized solutions for short-term charging load forecasting.
4. A rule-based smart charging recommendation system that demonstrates the feasibility of real-time SOC-aware vehicle rerouting to prevent localized grid congestion.

The results confirm that simulation-based data generation is a viable and highly effective approach for addressing the scarcity of real-world EV charging datasets, particularly in emerging markets like Bangladesh. This research provides a data-driven roadmap for urban authorities and power distributors to navigate the rapid electrification of the transport sector, ensuring grid stability through accurate, high-fidelity load forecasting tools.

5.2 Limitations

Several limitations should be noted. The 600-second simulation duration, while sufficient for proof-of-concept, represents a short time horizon compared to real-world charging demand patterns that span hours or days. Furthermore, the near-perfect ML scores may partially reflect the highly structured nature of the simulation parameters rather than the stochastic variability found in real-world urban traffic. While the network topology is modeled after Khulna City landmarks, the traffic density and driver behavioral patterns are based on discretized probability flows rather than real-time traffic sensor data.

5.3 Recommendations for Further Research

Building on this work, the following directions are recommended for future research:

1. **Larger and more diverse simulations:** Extend the simulation to longer time horizons (24+ hours), larger vehicle fleets, and heterogeneous EV types to test model robustness [5].
2. **Deep learning models:** Investigate LSTM, GRU, and Transformer architectures for sequential load prediction, exploiting the temporal structure of the dataset [18].
3. **Real-world validation:** Validate the simulation-trained models against real-world EV charging data when such data becomes available in Bangladesh [3].

4. **Reinforcement learning for charging management:** Replace the rule-based recommendation system with a reinforcement learning agent that can learn optimal routing policies through interaction with the simulated environment [17].
5. **Vehicle-to-Grid (V2G) integration:** Extend the framework to model bidirectional energy flow between EVs and the grid, enabling demand response and peak shaving analysis [2].
6. **Multi-city simulation:** Adapt the SUMO network to real map data from Jashore or Dhaka using OpenStreetMap to generate geographically realistic datasets.

[19]

References

- [1] IEA, “Global ev outlook 2023: Catching up with climate ambitions,” *International Energy Agency*, 2023, paris: IEA.
- [2] M. Yilmaz and P. T. Krein, “Review of the impact of vehicle-to-grid technologies on distribution systems and utility interfaces,” *IEEE Transactions on Power Electronics*, vol. 28, no. 12, pp. 5673–5689, 2013.
- [3] M. S. Islam, M. H. Rahman, and M. Z. Hossain, “Electric vehicle adoption and charging infrastructure challenges in developing countries,” *Sustainable Energy Technologies and Assessments*, vol. 52, p. 102201, 2022.
- [4] E. Sortomme, M. M. Hindi, S. D. J. MacPherson, and S. S. Venkata, “Coordinated charging of plug-in hybrid electric vehicles to minimize distribution system losses,” *IEEE Transactions on Smart Grid*, vol. 2, no. 1, pp. 198–205, 2011.
- [5] Y. Zhang, T. Zhao, Y. Tian, and Y. Han, “Machine learning-based prediction of electric vehicle charging load,” *IEEE Transactions on Smart Grid*, vol. 12, no. 4, pp. 3540–3553, 2021.
- [6] A. Ul-Haq, C. Cecati, and E. El-Saadany, “Probabilistic modeling of electric vehicle charging pattern in a residential distribution network,” *Electric Power Systems Research*, vol. 157, pp. 126–133, 2018.
- [7] J. He, H. Yang, T.-Q. Tang, and H.-J. Huang, “An optimal charging station location model with the consideration of electric vehicle’s driving range,” *Transportation Research Part C: Emerging Technologies*, vol. 86, pp. 641–654, 2018.
- [8] Y. Chen, Z. Xu, and K. P. Wong, “A probabilistic load flow method considering large-scale integration of electric vehicles,” *IEEE Transactions on Power Systems*, vol. 28, no. 4, pp. 4093–4101, 2013.

- [9] Z. Wang, Y. Li, L. Zhang, and P. Liu, "Random forest-based short-term load forecasting for electric vehicle charging stations," *Energies*, vol. 13, no. 16, p. 4093, 2020.
- [10] M. Chen, Q. Wu, Q. Guo, and H. Sun, "Xgboost-based day-ahead electric load forecasting for electric vehicle charging stations," *Applied Energy*, vol. 320, p. 119300, 2022.
- [11] S. B. Taieb and R. J. Hyndman, "A gradient boosting approach to the kaggle load forecasting competition," *International Journal of Forecasting*, vol. 30, no. 2, pp. 382–394, 2014.
- [12] C. Guo, J. Yang, and L. Yang, "Planning of electric vehicle charging infrastructure for urban areas with tight land supply," *IEEE Transactions on Vehicular Technology*, vol. 68, no. 4, pp. 3138–3150, 2019.
- [13] P. A. Lopez, M. Behrisch, L. Bieker-Walz, J. Erdmann, Y.-P. Flötteröd, R. Hilbrich, L. Lücken, J. Rummel, P. Wagner, and E. Wießner, "Microscopic traffic simulation using sumo," *IEEE Intelligent Transportation Systems Conference (ITSC)*, pp. 2575–2582, 2018.
- [14] A. Wegener, M. Piórkowski, M. Raya, H. Hellbrück, S. Fischer, and J.-P. Hubaux, "Traci: An interface for coupling road traffic and network simulators," *Proceedings of the 11th Communications and Networking Simulation Symposium*, pp. 155–163, 2008.
- [15] D. Helbing and M. Treiber, "Gas-kinetic-based traffic model explaining observed hysteretic phase transition," *Physical Review Letters*, vol. 81, no. 14, p. 3042, 1998.
- [16] T. Ding, C. Li, Y. Yang, J. Jiang, Z. Bie, and F. Blaabjerg, "A two-stage robust optimization for centralized-optimal dispatch of photovoltaic inverters in active distribution networks," *IEEE Transactions on Sustainable Energy*, vol. 8, no. 2, pp. 744–754, 2017.
- [17] H. D. Nguyen, D. Bhatt, N. Krishnan, M. Panwar, and G. K. Venayagamoorthy, "Ev charging coordination via adaptive dynamic programming," *IEEE Transactions on Vehicular Technology*, vol. 70, no. 3, pp. 2083–2094, 2021.

- [18] X. Shi, Y. Xu, Q. Guo, H. Sun, and W. Jiang, “Distributed optimal energy management in microgrids,” *IEEE Transactions on Smart Grid*, vol. 6, no. 3, pp. 1137–1146, 2015.
- [19] P. Kotiranta, M. Junkkari, and J. Nummenmaa, “Performance of graph and relational databases in complex queries,” *Applied Sciences*, vol. 12, no. 13, 2022. [Online]. Available: <https://www.mdpi.com/2076-3417/12/13/6490>